

# Chapter 9: Gases & Kinetic Molecular Theory

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PHY201  
Lecture 9



# Part I

## Gas Pressure

# Outline of Part I: Gas Pressure

Introduction to Gases

Gas Pressure

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Introduction to Gases

Gas Pressure

# Properties of Gases

## What Makes Gases Unique?

- ▶ Gases **expand to fill** any container they occupy.
  - ▶ Gases are highly **compressible**: volume changes substantially with pressure.
  - ▶ Gases have much **lower density** than solids or liquids.
  - ▶ Gases and liquids are both **fluids**: they flow and take the shape of their container.
- 
- ▶ Gases **are** compressible.
  - ▶ Liquids are **not** compressible.

# Outline of Part I: Gas Pressure

Introduction to Gases

Gas Pressure

# Pressure

Definition: Pressure ( $P$ ) — SI Unit: pascal (Pa)

Pressure is the force exerted per unit area on a surface:

$$P = \frac{F}{A}$$

where  $F$  is force (N) and  $A$  is area ( $\text{m}^2$ ).

- ▶ **Atmospheric pressure** arises from the weight of the air above Earth's surface.
- ▶ **Gas pressure** in a container results from molecules colliding with the container walls.

## Units of Pressure

| Unit               | Symbol | Value at Standard Conditions |
|--------------------|--------|------------------------------|
| Pascal             | Pa     | 101 325 Pa                   |
| Kilopascal         | kPa    | 101.325 kPa                  |
| Atmosphere         | atm    | 1 atm (definition)           |
| Bar                | bar    | $\approx 1.013\,25$ bar      |
| Millimeters of Hg  | mmHg   | 760 mmHg                     |
| Torr               | torr   | 760 torr                     |
| Pounds per sq. in. | psi    | 14.696 psi                   |

► 1 mmHg  $\approx$  1 torr (essentially identical)

► Conversions: 1 atm = 760 torr = 101 325 Pa



## Check Your Understanding

Convert 1.50 atm to (a) torr and (b) kPa.

Come to lecture to see the answer.

# Manometers

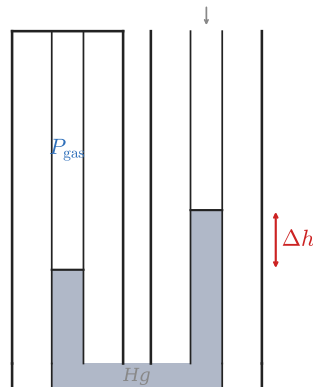
## Measuring Gas Pressure

A **manometer** is a U-shaped tube containing mercury used to measure the pressure of a trapped gas.

### Open-end manometer:

- ▶ One arm connects to the gas sample.
- ▶ The other arm is open to the atmosphere.
- ▶ The mercury level difference  $\Delta h$  gives the pressure difference.

\textbf{Open-End Manometer}



$$P_{\text{gas}} = P_{\text{atm}} \pm \Delta h \text{ (in mmHg)}$$

# Reading a Manometer

## Example

$P_{\text{atm}} = 760 \text{ mmHg}$ . The gas side of the manometer is 30 mm **lower** than the open side. What is  $P_{\text{gas}}$ ?

$$P_{\text{gas}} = P_{\text{atm}} + \Delta h$$

$$P_{\text{gas}} = 760 \text{ mmHg} + 30 \text{ mmHg}$$

$$P_{\text{gas}} = 790 \text{ mmHg}$$

- ▶ Gas side *lower*  $\Rightarrow$  gas pressure is *greater* than atmospheric.
- ▶ Gas side *higher*  $\Rightarrow$  gas pressure is *less* than atmospheric.

## Check Your Understanding

A gas sample is connected to an open-end manometer.

$$P_{\text{atm}} = 760 \text{ torr.}$$

The mercury on the **gas side** is 45 mm **higher** than the open side.

What is  $P_{\text{gas}}$ ?

Come to lecture to see the answer.

## Part II

# Gas Laws

## Outline of Part II: Gas Laws

Temperature and the Gas Variables

The Simple Gas Laws

The Ideal Gas Law

# Outline of Part II: Gas Laws

Temperature and the Gas Variables

The Simple Gas Laws

The Ideal Gas Law

## Variables That Describe a Gas

The state of any gas sample is fully described by four variables:

| Variable    | Symbol | SI Unit      | Common Units                         |
|-------------|--------|--------------|--------------------------------------|
| Pressure    | $P$    | Pa           | atm, mmHg, torr, kPa                 |
| Volume      | $V$    | $\text{m}^3$ | L, mL                                |
| Temperature | $T$    | K            | Must convert from $^{\circ}\text{C}$ |
| Amount      | $n$    | mol          | —                                    |

Temperature **must always be in Kelvin** in gas law calculations.

$$T(\text{K}) = T(^{\circ}\text{C}) + 273.15$$



# Temperature Scales

## Converting Between Temperature Scales

$$T_K = T_C + 273.15$$

$$T_C = \frac{5}{9}(T_F - 32)$$

$$T_F = \frac{9}{5} T_C + 32$$

## Example

Convert 25.0 °C to Kelvin.

$$T_K = 25.0\text{ °C} + 273.15 = \boxed{298.15\text{ K}}$$

# Outline of Part II: Gas Laws

Temperature and the Gas Variables

The Simple Gas Laws

The Ideal Gas Law

# Boyle's Law

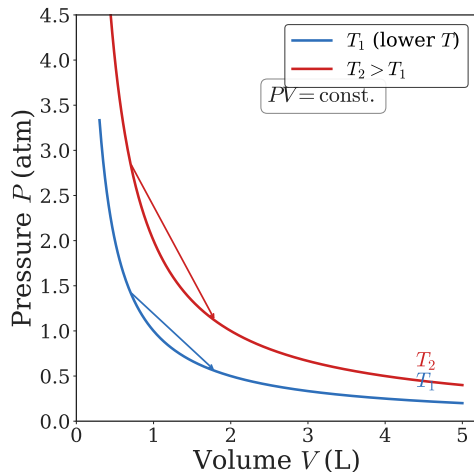
## Boyle's Law (constant $T$ , $n$ )

At constant temperature and amount, pressure and volume are **inversely proportional**:

$$V \propto \frac{1}{P} \Rightarrow PV = \text{const.}$$

$$P_1 V_1 = P_2 V_2$$

Squeezing a sealed balloon: volume  $\downarrow \Rightarrow$  pressure  $\uparrow$ .



## Check Your Understanding

A gas occupies 4.0 L at 1.0 atm.

The pressure is increased to 2.0 atm at constant temperature.

What is the new volume?

Come to lecture to see the answer.

# Charles's Law

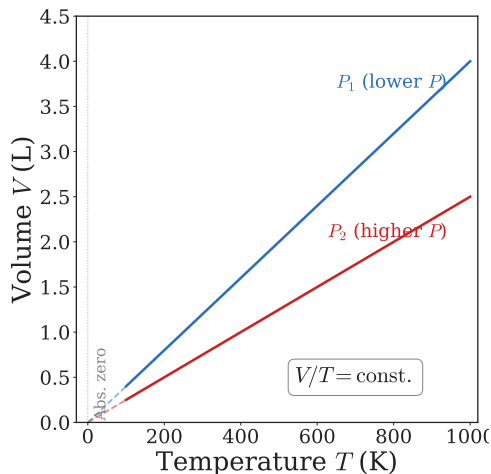
## Charles's Law (constant $P$ , $n$ )

At constant pressure and amount, volume is **directly proportional** to temperature (in K):

$$V \propto T \Rightarrow \frac{V}{T} = \text{const.}$$

$$\frac{V_1}{T_1} = \frac{V_2}{T_2}$$

A balloon placed in a freezer shrinks; in a hot car, it expands.



## Check Your Understanding

A balloon holds 2.0 L at 300 K.

It is cooled to 150 K at constant pressure.

What is the new volume?

Come to lecture to see the answer.

# Avogadro's Law

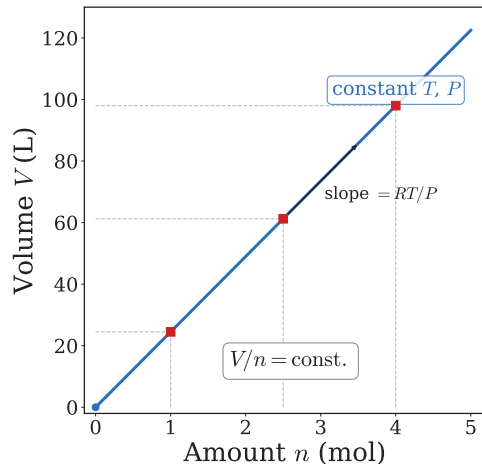
## Avogadro's Law (constant $T, P$ )

At constant temperature and pressure, volume is **directly proportional** to the amount of gas:

$$V \propto n \Rightarrow \frac{V}{n} = \text{const.}$$

$$\frac{V_1}{n_1} = \frac{V_2}{n_2}$$

A punctured tire: gas escapes (moles ↓)  
so volume ↓.



## Summary: The Simple Gas Laws

| Name       | Relationship    | Held Const. | Example             |
|------------|-----------------|-------------|---------------------|
| Boyle's    | $V \propto 1/P$ | $T, n$      | Squeezing a balloon |
| Charles's  | $V \propto T$   | $P, n$      | Balloon in freezer  |
| Avogadro's | $V \propto n$   | $T, P$      | Punctured tire      |

- ▶ Gases are **compressible**: volume responds to pressure changes.
- ▶ Liquids are **incompressible**: volume does not change with pressure.



## Check Your Understanding

A gas sample occupies 8.0 L and contains 2.0 mol at constant  $T$  and  $P$ .

If gas is added until the amount reaches 3.0 mol, what is the new volume?

Come to lecture to see the answer.

## Outline of Part II: Gas Laws

Temperature and the Gas Variables

The Simple Gas Laws

The Ideal Gas Law

## Combining the Gas Laws: Ideal Gas Law

Combining all three simple gas laws:

$$V \propto \frac{1}{P}, \quad V \propto T, \quad V \propto n \quad \Rightarrow \quad V \propto \frac{nT}{P}$$

Inserting a proportionality constant  $R$  (the **gas constant**):

$$PV = nRT$$

$$R = 0.08206 \text{ L}\cdot\text{atm}\cdot\text{mol}^{-1}\cdot\text{K}^{-1} \quad (\text{use when } P \text{ in atm, } V \text{ in L})$$

$$R = 8.314 \text{ J}\cdot\text{mol}^{-1}\cdot\text{K}^{-1} \quad (\text{SI; when } P \text{ in Pa, } V \text{ in m}^3)$$

## Ideal Behavior and Conditions

- ▶ The ideal gas law assumes gas molecules have **no volume** and **no intermolecular forces**.
- ▶ Gases behave most **ideally** at high temperature and low pressure.

$$\text{Ideality} \propto T$$

Higher  $T$ : kinetic energy dominates over intermolecular attractions

$$\text{Ideality} \propto \frac{1}{P}$$

Lower  $P$ : molecules are far apart and rarely interact

## Standard Temperature and Pressure (STP)

### Standard Temperature and Pressure (STP)

- ▶  $T = 0^{\circ}\text{C} = 273.15\text{ K}$
- ▶  $P = 1\text{ atm} = 101\,325\text{ Pa}$

### Standard Molar Volume

One mole of any *ideal* gas at STP occupies:

$$V = \frac{nRT}{P} = \frac{(1\text{ mol})(0.08206\text{ L}\cdot\text{atm}\cdot\text{mol}^{-1}\cdot\text{K}^{-1})(273.15\text{ K})}{1\text{ atm}} = \boxed{22.41\text{ L}}$$

$22.41\text{ L mol}^{-1}$  is the **standard molar volume** — a useful shortcut for STP problems.

## Example: Using the Ideal Gas Law

### Scuba Tank (cp2e\_ch9)

A scuba tank contains 13.2 L of air at 153 atm.

What volume of air at 1.00 atm and 25.0 °C does this represent?

(Use combined gas law,  $n$  constant.)

$$P_1 = 153 \text{ atm}, \quad V_1 = 13.2 \text{ L}, \quad T_1 = 298 \text{ K}$$

$$P_2 = 1.00 \text{ atm}, \quad V_2 = ?, \quad T_2 = 298 \text{ K}$$

$$\frac{P_1 V_1}{T_1} = \frac{P_2 V_2}{T_2}$$

$$V_2 = \frac{P_1 V_1 T_2}{T_1 P_2} = \frac{(153 \text{ atm})(13.2 \text{ L})(298 \text{ K})}{(298 \text{ K})(1.00 \text{ atm})}$$

$$V_2 = 2020 \text{ L}$$

- ▶  $T_1 = T_2$ , so the temperature ratio cancels.
- ▶ 2020 L at atmospheric pressure — a huge volume for diving!

## Relating Two States: The Combined Gas Law

When the amount of gas is constant ( $n$  fixed),  $PV/T$  is constant:

$$\frac{P_1 V_1}{T_1} = \frac{P_2 V_2}{T_2}$$

Special cases (one variable held fixed):

- ▶  $T$  constant:  $P_1 V_1 = P_2 V_2$  (Boyle's Law)
- ▶  $P$  constant:  $V_1/T_1 = V_2/T_2$  (Charles's Law)
- ▶  $V$  constant:  $P_1/T_1 = P_2/T_2$  (Amontons's Law)

## Example: Relating Two States

State 1:  $P_1 = 1.00 \text{ atm}$ ,  $T_1 = 25.00^\circ\text{C}$ ,  $V_1 = 1.00 \text{ L}$ .

Cool to  $T_2 = -5.00^\circ\text{C}$  at constant pressure. Find  $V_2$ .

$$T_1 = 298.15 \text{ K}, \quad T_2 = 268.15 \text{ K}$$

$$P_1 = P_2 \text{ (constant)}$$

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$$\frac{P_1 V_1}{T_1} = \frac{P_2 V_2}{T_2}$$

$$V_2 = V_1 \cdot \frac{T_2}{T_1} \cdot \underbrace{\frac{P_1}{P_2}}_{=1}$$

$$V_2 = 1.00 \text{ L} \cdot \frac{268.15 \text{ K}}{298.15 \text{ K}}$$

$$V_2 = 0.899 \text{ L}$$

- ▶ Always convert  $T$  to Kelvin first!
- ▶ Cooling  $\Rightarrow$  volume decreases (Charles's Law)



## Density and Molar Mass from the Ideal Gas Law

### Density of an Ideal Gas

From  $PV = nRT$  and  $n = m/\mathcal{M}$ :

$$\rho = \frac{m}{V} = \frac{P\mathcal{M}}{RT}$$

where  $\mathcal{M}$  is molar mass.

Higher  $P$  or lower  $T \Rightarrow$  denser gas.

### Molar Mass of an Unknown Gas

Rearranging  $PV = \frac{m}{\mathcal{M}}RT$ :

$$\mathcal{M} = \frac{mRT}{PV}$$

Measure  $m$ ,  $P$ ,  $V$ ,  $T$  to identify an unknown gas.

- ▶ These formulas let you use a gas as if it were a solid sample: measure its mass and gas properties, then find its molar mass.

## Check Your Understanding

At the same temperature and pressure, which gas is **densest**?

(A) He    (B) H<sub>2</sub>    (C) N<sub>2</sub>    (D) CO<sub>2</sub>

Come to lecture to see the answer.

## Part III

# Gas Mixtures

# Outline of Part III: Gas Mixtures

Dalton's Law and Partial Pressures

Gas Stoichiometry

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Dalton's Law and Partial Pressures

Gas Stoichiometry

# Mixtures of Gases: Dalton's Law

## Dalton's Law of Partial Pressures

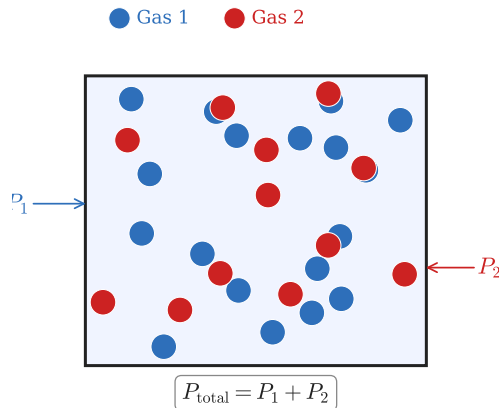
Each gas in a mixture exerts pressure **independently** of the others.

The **total pressure** equals the sum of all **partial pressures**:

$$P_{\text{total}} = \sum_i P_i = P_1 + P_2 + P_3 + \dots$$

## Dry Air at 760 mmHg

$$P_{\text{N}_2} \approx 593, P_{\text{O}_2} \approx 160, P_{\text{Ar}} \approx 7 \text{ mmHg}$$
$$P_{\text{total}} \approx 760 \text{ mmHg} \checkmark$$



# Mole Fraction and Partial Pressure

## Definition: Mole Fraction ( $\chi_i$ )

The mole fraction of component  $i$  is the fraction of total moles it contributes:

$$\chi_i = \frac{n_i}{n_{\text{total}}}, \quad \sum_i \chi_i = 1$$

## Partial Pressure from Mole Fraction

$$P_i = \chi_i \times P_{\text{total}}$$

$$\text{e.g. } \chi_3 = \frac{1}{6} = 0.167 \Rightarrow P_3 = 0.167 \times P_{\text{total}}$$

## Example: Partial Pressures

A gas mixture has  $P_{\text{total}} = 2.0 \text{ atm}$ . The mole fraction of gas 3 is  $\chi_3 = \frac{1}{6}$ . Find  $P_3$ .

$$P_3 = \chi_3 \times P_{\text{total}}$$

$$P_3 = \left(\frac{1}{6}\right)(2.0 \text{ atm})$$

$$P_3 = 0.33 \text{ atm}$$

Gas 3 is  $\frac{1}{6} \approx 16.7\%$  of the mixture by moles, so it contributes 16.7% of the total pressure.



## Check Your Understanding

A container holds three gases at  $P_{\text{total}} = 4.0 \text{ atm}$ :

$$\chi_A = 0.50, \quad \chi_B = 0.30, \quad \chi_C = 0.20$$

Find  $P_A$ ,  $P_B$ , and  $P_C$ .

Come to lecture to see the answer.

## Collecting Gas over Water

When gas is collected by water displacement, the collected gas is saturated with water vapor:

$$P_{\text{total}} = P_{\text{gas}} + P_{\text{H}_2\text{O}}$$

Pressure of the **dry** gas:

$$P_{\text{gas}} = P_{\text{total}} - P_{\text{H}_2\text{O}}$$

- ▶  $P_{\text{H}_2\text{O}}$  depends on temperature (found in tables).
- ▶ At 25 °C:  $P_{\text{H}_2\text{O}} = 23.8 \text{ mmHg}$ .
- ▶ At 100 °C:  $P_{\text{H}_2\text{O}} = 760 \text{ mmHg}$  — this is why water boils at 100 °C at 1 atm!

# Outline of Part III: Gas Mixtures

Dalton's Law and Partial Pressures

Gas Stoichiometry

# Gas Stoichiometry

The ideal gas law connects moles to measurable gas quantities:

$$n = \frac{PV}{RT}$$

This lets us use a gas volume the way we use the mass of a solid in stoichiometry.

## General Approach

1. Convert known gas volume  $\rightarrow$  moles using  $n = PV/RT$  (or use STP shortcut).
2. Apply stoichiometric mole ratios from the balanced equation.
3. Convert product moles  $\rightarrow$  volume using  $V = nRT/P$ .

At STP shortcut:  $n = V/(22.41 \text{ L mol}^{-1})$ .

## Check Your Understanding

For the reaction:  $\text{N}_2(\text{g}) + 3 \text{H}_2(\text{g}) \rightarrow 2 \text{NH}_3(\text{g})$

All volumes measured at the same  $T$  and  $P$ .

How many liters of  $\text{NH}_3$  are produced from 5.0 L of  $\text{N}_2$ ?

Come to lecture to see the answer.

## Part IV

# Kinetic Molecular Theory

## Outline of Part IV: Kinetic Molecular Theory

Effusion and Diffusion

Kinetic Molecular Theory

# Outline of Part IV: Kinetic Molecular Theory

Effusion and Diffusion

Kinetic Molecular Theory



# Effusion and Diffusion

## Effusion

The escape of gas molecules through a **tiny pinhole** into a vacuum or lower-pressure region.

A helium balloon slowly deflates as He atoms effuse through microscopic pores in the latex.

## Diffusion

The spreading of gas molecules through space in response to a **concentration gradient** (high  $\rightarrow$  low concentration).

The scent of perfume gradually spreads across a room by diffusion.

`\textbf{Effusion}`

`\textbf{Diffusion}`



# Graham's Law of Effusion

## Graham's Law

The rate of effusion of a gas is **inversely proportional** to the square root of its molar mass:

$$\text{rate} \propto \frac{1}{\sqrt{\mathcal{M}}}$$

For two gases A and B:

$$\frac{\text{rate}_A}{\text{rate}_B} = \sqrt{\frac{\mathcal{M}_B}{\mathcal{M}_A}}$$

**Lighter gases move faster**  $\Rightarrow$  they effuse and diffuse more rapidly.

This is because lighter molecules must travel faster to have the same kinetic energy.

## Example: Graham's Law

### H<sub>2</sub> vs. O<sub>2</sub> Effusion Rate

How much faster does H<sub>2</sub> effuse than O<sub>2</sub>?

( $\mathcal{M}_{\text{H}_2} = 2.016 \text{ g mol}^{-1}$ ,  $\mathcal{M}_{\text{O}_2} = 32.00 \text{ g mol}^{-1}$ )

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{\text{rate}_{\text{H}_2}}{\text{rate}_{\text{O}_2}} &= \sqrt{\frac{\mathcal{M}_{\text{O}_2}}{\mathcal{M}_{\text{H}_2}}} = \sqrt{\frac{32.00 \text{ g mol}^{-1}}{2.016 \text{ g mol}^{-1}}} \\ &= \sqrt{15.87}\end{aligned}$$

$$\frac{\text{rate}_{\text{H}_2}}{\text{rate}_{\text{O}_2}} \approx 3.98 \approx 4$$

H<sub>2</sub> effuses  $\approx 4$  times faster than O<sub>2</sub>.

Intuition:  $\sqrt{32/2} = \sqrt{16} = 4$ .

## Check Your Understanding

Which effuses faster: He ( $\mathcal{M} = 4.00 \text{ g mol}^{-1}$ ) or N<sub>2</sub> ( $\mathcal{M} = 28.0 \text{ g mol}^{-1}$ )?

By approximately what factor?

Come to lecture to see the answer.

# Outline of Part IV: Kinetic Molecular Theory

Effusion and Diffusion

Kinetic Molecular Theory

# The Kinetic Molecular Theory of Gases

## Five Postulates of KMT

1. Gas particles are in **continuous random motion**, moving in straight lines between collisions.
2. The volume of gas particles is **negligibly small** compared to the distances between them.
3. Gas pressure arises from **collisions** of particles with the container walls.
4. All collisions are **elastic** — no kinetic energy is lost.
5. The average kinetic energy of particles is **directly proportional to the Kelvin temperature**:  $\overline{KE} \propto T$

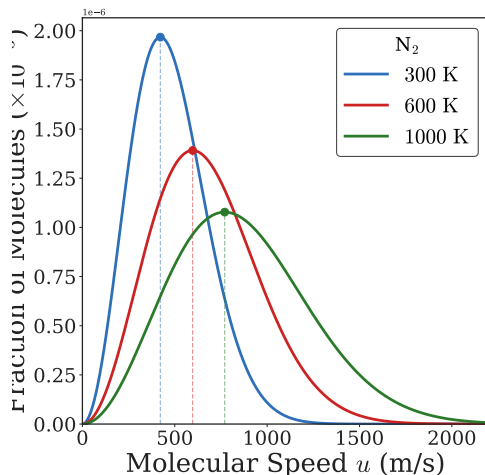
## How KMT Explains the Gas Laws

| Gas Law    | KMT Explanation                                                                                |
|------------|------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Boyle's    | $V \downarrow \Rightarrow$ more wall collisions per area $\Rightarrow P \uparrow$              |
| Charles's  | $T \uparrow \Rightarrow$ faster particles; expand $V$ to keep $P$ constant                     |
| Avogadro's | More particles $\Rightarrow$ more collisions; expand $V$ to keep $P$ constant                  |
| Dalton's   | No intermolecular forces: each gas hits walls independently                                    |
| Amontons's | $T \uparrow \Rightarrow$ harder/more frequent collisions $\Rightarrow P \uparrow$ at const $V$ |

# The Maxwell-Boltzmann Speed Distribution

Gas molecules do not all travel at the same speed. The **Maxwell-Boltzmann distribution** shows the fraction of molecules at each speed.

- ▶ **Higher  $T$ :** peak shifts to higher speeds; curve broadens and flattens.
- ▶ **Higher  $M$ :** peak shifts to *lower* speeds (heavier  $\Rightarrow$  slower at same KE).





## Check Your Understanding

Two gases at the same temperature: He and Xe.  
Which has the higher average molecular speed? Explain why.

Come to lecture to see the answer.

# Root-Mean-Square Speed

## RMS Speed ( $u_{\text{rms}}$ )

The most commonly used average molecular speed:

$$u_{\text{rms}} = \sqrt{\frac{3RT}{\mathcal{M}}}$$

$R = 8.314 \text{ J}\cdot\text{mol}^{-1}\cdot\text{K}^{-1}$ ;  $T$  in K;  $\mathcal{M}$  in  $\text{kg mol}^{-1}$ ; result in  $\text{m s}^{-1}$ .

- ▶ Use  $R = 8.314 \text{ J}\cdot\text{mol}^{-1}\cdot\text{K}^{-1}$  (not 0.08206).
- ▶ Molar mass **must** be in  $\text{kg mol}^{-1}$  (divide g/mol by 1000).

## Example: RMS Speed Calculation

### RMS Speed of N<sub>2</sub> at 30 °C

Calculate  $u_{\text{rms}}$  for nitrogen gas at 30 °C.

$$T = 303 \text{ K}, \quad \mathcal{M}_{\text{N}_2} = 0.02801 \text{ kg mol}^{-1}$$

$$u_{\text{rms}} = \sqrt{\frac{3RT}{\mathcal{M}}}$$

$$= \sqrt{\frac{3(8.314)(303)}{0.02801}}$$

$$u_{\text{rms}} = 519 \text{ m s}^{-1}$$

- ▶ 519 m/s  $\approx$  1160 mph!
- ▶ Very fast — explains rapid mixing of gases.
- ▶ Real diffusion is slower due to molecular collisions.

## Check Your Understanding

If the temperature of a gas doubles from 300 K to 600 K, by what factor does  $u_{\text{rms}}$  change?

Come to lecture to see the answer.

## Part V

# Non-ideal Gas Behavior

# Outline of Part V: Non-ideal Gas Behavior

Non-ideal Gas Behavior

# Outline of Part V: Non-ideal Gas Behavior

Non-ideal Gas Behavior

# When Does the Ideal Gas Law Break Down?

## Conditions for Non-ideal Behavior

- ▶ **High pressure:** molecules are crowded together; their finite volume is no longer negligible; repulsions become significant.
- ▶ **Low temperature:** slow-moving molecules feel intermolecular attractions more strongly.

## Two KMT Postulates That Fail

- ▶ Postulate 2 (negligible molecular volume) breaks down at **high**  $P$ .
- ▶ Postulate 3 (no intermolecular forces) breaks down at **low**  $T$ .

Most ideal: **low**  $P$  and **high**  $T$



# The van der Waals Equation

Modifies the ideal gas law with two correction terms:

$$\left(P + \frac{n^2 a}{V^2}\right)(V - nb) = nRT$$

## Constant $a$

Corrects for **intermolecular attractions**.

Larger  $a \Rightarrow$  stronger attractions.

The  $n^2 a / V^2$  term adds to  $P$  (attractions reduce the effective pressure).

## Constant $b$

Corrects for **finite molecular volume**.

Larger  $b \Rightarrow$  larger molecules.

The  $nb$  term reduces  $V$  (molecules take up space that is unavailable to other molecules).

# Van der Waals Constants

| Gas            | Formula          | $a$ ( $\text{L}^2 \text{atm mol}^{-2}$ ) | $b$ ( $\text{L mol}^{-1}$ ) |
|----------------|------------------|------------------------------------------|-----------------------------|
| Helium         | He               | 0.034                                    | 0.0237                      |
| Hydrogen       | H <sub>2</sub>   | 0.245                                    | 0.0265                      |
| Nitrogen       | N <sub>2</sub>   | 1.39                                     | 0.0391                      |
| Oxygen         | O <sub>2</sub>   | 1.36                                     | 0.0318                      |
| Carbon dioxide | CO <sub>2</sub>  | 3.59                                     | 0.0427                      |
| Water          | H <sub>2</sub> O | 5.46                                     | 0.0305                      |

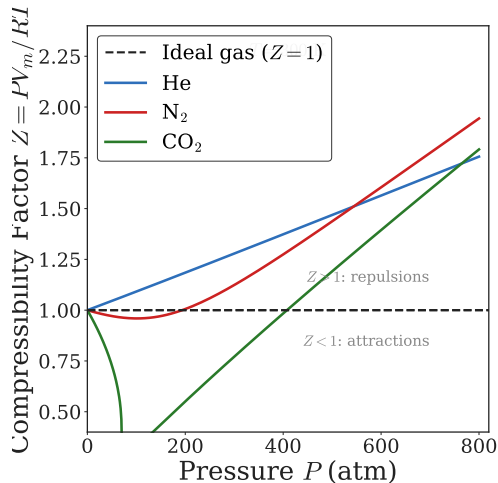
- ▶ H<sub>2</sub>O has the largest  $a \Rightarrow$  strongest intermolecular attractions (hydrogen bonding).

# Real vs. Ideal Gas Behavior

## Compressibility Factor $Z$

$$Z = \frac{PV}{nRT}$$

- ▶ Ideal gas:  $Z = 1$  always.
- ▶  $Z > 1$ : repulsions dominate; gas harder to compress than ideal.
- ▶  $Z < 1$ : attractions dominate; gas easier to compress than ideal.



## Check Your Understanding

Which gas deviates **most** from ideal behavior at high  $P$  and low  $T$ ?

(A) He    (B) H<sub>2</sub>    (C) N<sub>2</sub>    (D) CO<sub>2</sub>

Come to lecture to see the answer.

## Check Your Understanding

Under what conditions of  $T$  and  $P$  does a real gas behave most like an ideal gas?

Explain using the KMT postulates.

Come to lecture to see the answer.